

NOTES

Contents

Rationalizing the denominator	2
Partial fraction decomposition	2
Statistics	4
Graphing	4
Logarithms	5
Trigonometry	5
Calculus	5

Rationalizing the denominator

In general, you want to avoid radicals in the denominator. To rationalize the denominator, multiply both the numerator and the denominator by the conjugate of the denominator.

$$\begin{aligned}\frac{1}{1 + \sqrt{2}} \\&= \frac{1}{1 + \sqrt{2}} \cdot \frac{1 - \sqrt{2}}{1 - \sqrt{2}} \\&= \frac{1 - \sqrt{2}}{(1 + \sqrt{2})(1 - \sqrt{2})} \\&= \frac{1 - \sqrt{2}}{1^2 - \sqrt{2}^2} \\&= \frac{1 - \sqrt{2}}{1 - 2} \\&= \frac{1 - \sqrt{2}}{-1} \\&= -1 + \sqrt{2}\end{aligned}$$

Exercises

1.

$$\begin{aligned}\frac{1 + \sqrt{8}}{\sqrt{9} - \sqrt{2}} \\&= \frac{(1 + \sqrt{8})(\sqrt{9} + \sqrt{2})}{7} \\&= \frac{\sqrt{9} + 3\sqrt{8} + \sqrt{2} + \sqrt{16}}{7} \\&= \frac{3 + 6\sqrt{2} + \sqrt{2} + 4}{7} \\&= \frac{7 + 7\sqrt{2}}{7} \\&= 1 + \sqrt{2}\end{aligned}$$

Partial fraction decomposition

We have something of the form:

$$\frac{1}{(x - 1)(3x - 2)}$$

and we want to decompose it into partial fractions:

$$\frac{1}{(x - 1)(3x - 2)} = \frac{A}{x - 1} + \frac{B}{3x - 2}$$

Multiplying both sides by $(x - 1)(3x - 2)$, we get:

$$1 = A(3x - 2) + B(x - 1)$$

Setting $x = 1$, we get:

$$1 = A(3(1) - 2) + B(1 - 1) = A$$

Setting $x = \frac{2}{3}$, we get:

$$1 = A\left(3\left(\frac{2}{3}\right) - 2\right) + B\left(\frac{2}{3} - 1\right) = -\frac{B}{3}$$

Solving for B , we get:

$$B = -3$$

So the partial fraction decomposition is:

$$\frac{1}{(x-1)(3x-2)} = \frac{1}{x-1} - \frac{3}{3x-2}$$

Exercises

1. Decompose $\frac{44x + 48}{(x+6)(x-3)(x+2)}$

$$\frac{44x + 48}{(x+6)(x-3)(x+2)} = \frac{A}{x+6} + \frac{B}{x-3} + \frac{C}{x+2}$$

$$44x + 48 = A(x-3)(x+2) + B(x+6)(x+2) + C(x+6)(x-3)$$

Set $x = 3$:

$$44 \cdot 3 + 48 = B \cdot 9 \cdot 5$$

$$\frac{180}{9 \cdot 5} = B$$

$$B = 4$$

Set $x = -2$:

$$44 \cdot -2 + 48 = C \cdot 4 \cdot -5$$

$$-40 = C \cdot -20$$

$$C = 2$$

Set $x = -6$:

$$44 \cdot -6 + 48 = A \cdot -9 \cdot -4$$

$$A = -6$$

2. Given that

$$\frac{-2x-9}{x+3}x = \frac{1}{x+3} + \frac{B}{x}$$

find B

$$\begin{aligned}\frac{-2x-9}{x+3}x &= \frac{1}{x+3} + \frac{B}{x} \\ (-2x-9) &= x + B(x+3) \\ -3x-9 &= B(x+3) \\ \frac{-3(x+3)}{x+3} &= B \\ B &= -3\end{aligned}$$

3. Given that

$$\begin{aligned}\frac{-9x+36}{(x-3)(x-6)} &= -\frac{3}{x-3} + \frac{B}{x-6} \\ -9x+36 &= -3(x-6) + B(x-3) \\ -6x+18 &= B(x-3) \\ \frac{-6(x-3)}{x-3} &= B \\ B &= -6\end{aligned}$$

Statistics

Variance

$$\sigma^2 = \frac{1}{n} \sum_{i=1}^n (x_i - \bar{x})^2$$

Covariance

Covariance is the measure of the joint variability of two random variables.

$$\text{Cov}(x, y) = \frac{1}{n} \sum_{i=1}^n (x_i - \bar{x})(y_i - \bar{y})$$

Graphing

Graphing cubic curves with one distinct real root

If we are given one root of a cubic equation, we can use synthetic division to factor it.

Example

Given that $(x-3)$ is a factor of $f(x) = x^3 + x^2 - 4x - 24$, sketch the curve of $y = f(x)$.

First, synthetic division:

$$\begin{array}{r|rrrr} & x^3 & x^2 & x^1 & x^0 \\ 3 & 1 & 1 & -4 & -24 \\ & & 3 & 12 & 24 \\ \hline & 1 & 4 & 8 & 0 \end{array}$$

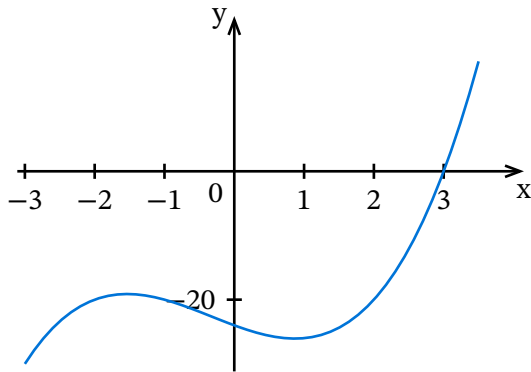
So we have $f(x) = (x-3)(x^2 + 4x + 8)$

$\therefore x = 3$ is a root

The discriminant of $x^2 + 4x + 8$ is $4^2 - 4 \cdot 1 \cdot 8 = -16$, which is negative, so $x = 3$ is the only real root.

The y intercept is $f(0) = 0^3 + 0^2 - 4 \cdot 0 - 24 = -24$

Now we can draw the curve:



Logarithms

Domain

$(0, \infty)$

Range

$(-\infty, \infty)$

Trigonometry

Unit circle

Reference angle

The *reference angle* of an angle is the smallest angle between the terminal side of the angle and the x-axis. It is always a positive angle less than or equal to 90 degrees.

Calculus

Limits

Limits of logarithmic functions

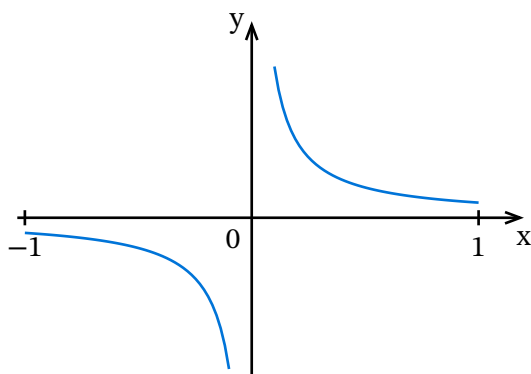
For any real n :

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow n} \log(x) = \log(n)$$

For infinity, remember the domain and apply transformations.

Limits of reciprocal functions

Remember, reciprocal functions have the form $f(x) = \frac{1}{x}$. The limit of a reciprocal function as x approaches infinity is always zero.



In general, for any non-constant polynomial $P(x)$, we have $\lim_{x \rightarrow \pm\infty} \frac{1}{P(x)} = 0$

But for $\lim(x \rightarrow 0)$, we have to consider the degree of the leading term of $P(x)$.

- Any function of the form $y = \frac{1}{x^n}$ where n is odd has the same shape as $y = \frac{1}{x}$. There is no limit at $x = 0$ because left and right limit are not the same.
- Any function of the form $y = \frac{1}{x^n}$ where n is even has the same shape as $y = \frac{1}{x^2}$. There is a limit, since the function will approach ∞ or $-\infty$.

Differentiation

Constant multiple rule

$$\frac{d}{dx}(kf(x)) = k \frac{d}{dx}(f(x))$$

Sum rule

$$\frac{d}{dx}(u(x) + v(x)) = \frac{du}{dx} + \frac{dv}{dx}$$

For example for $y = x^2 + x$:

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{dy}{dx} &= \frac{d}{dx}(x^2 + x) \\ &= \frac{d}{dx}(x^2) + \frac{d}{dx}(x) \\ &= 2x + 1 \end{aligned}$$

The power rule

Given a monomial $f(x) = x^n$, where n is a real number,

$$f'(x) = nx^{n-1}$$

Integration

The antiderivative

The antiderivative is the opposite of the derivative.

Infinitely many antiderivatives map to the same function.

For example, since the derivative of x^2 is $2x$, we have x^2 as an antiderivative of $2x$. But $x^2 + 2$, $x^2 + 1$, etc. are also antiderivatives of $2x$.

In general, the antiderivatives of $2x$ follow the pattern $x^2 + C$ where C is a constant.

We can also formulate that using the $\int$ symbol for integration:

$$\int 2x dx = x^2 + C$$

Where C is called the **constant of integration**.

These integrals are **indefinite integrals**.

The function being integrated (here $2x$) is called the **integrand**.

The power rule for integration

$$\int x^n dx = \frac{x^{n+1}}{n+1} + C$$

Exercises

1. Antiderivative of $\frac{1}{x^4}$?

$$\begin{aligned} \int \frac{1}{x^4} dx &= \int x^{-4} dx \\ &= \frac{x^{-4+1}}{-4+1} + C \\ &= \frac{x^{-3}}{-3} + C \\ &= -\frac{1}{3}x^3 + C \end{aligned}$$

2. Antiderivative of $x^{\frac{5}{8}}$

$$\begin{aligned} \int x^{\frac{5}{8}} dx &= \frac{x^{\frac{5}{8}+1}}{\frac{5}{8}+1} + C \\ &= \frac{x^{\frac{13}{8}}}{\frac{13}{8}} + C \\ &= \frac{8x^{\frac{13}{8}}}{13} + C \end{aligned}$$

3. Antiderivative of $\sqrt[5]{x^7}$

$$\begin{aligned} \int x^{\frac{7}{5}} dx &= \frac{x^{\frac{7}{5}+1}}{\frac{7}{5}+1} + C \\ &= \frac{x^{12/5}}{12/5} \\ &= \frac{5x^{12/5}}{12} \end{aligned}$$

4. Calculate $\int \left(\frac{z}{5}\right) dz$

$$\begin{aligned}
 \int \left(\frac{z}{5} dz \right) &= \frac{1}{5} \int z \, dz \\
 &= \frac{1}{5} \cdot \left(\frac{z^2}{2} + C \right) \\
 &= \frac{z^2}{10} + C
 \end{aligned}$$

The constant factor rule for indefinite integrals

To take the integral of a power function with a constant factor, like $5x^2$, we can take the constant factor out of the integral:

$$\int 5x^2 dx = 5 \cdot \int x^2 dx$$

This is the **constant factor rule**. In general:

$$\int kf(x)dx = k \int f(x)dx$$

Where k is a **constant**. It does not work if k is a variable.

Exercises

1. Calculate $\int \frac{1}{2y^5} dy$

$$\begin{aligned}
 \int \frac{1}{2y^5} dy &= \frac{1}{2} \int y^{-5} \\
 &= \frac{1}{2} \cdot \frac{y^{-5+1}}{-5+1} + C \\
 &= \frac{1}{2} \cdot \frac{y^{-4}}{-4} + C \\
 &= \frac{1}{2} \cdot -\frac{1}{4y^4} + C \\
 &= -\frac{1}{8y^4} + C
 \end{aligned}$$

2. Calculate $\int \frac{1}{3x^6} dx$

$$\begin{aligned}
 \int \frac{1}{3x^6} dx &= \frac{1}{3} \cdot \int x^{-6} \\
 &= \frac{1}{3} \cdot \frac{x^{-5}}{-5} + C \\
 &= \frac{1}{3} \cdot -\frac{1}{5x^5} + C \\
 &= -\frac{1}{15x^5} + C
 \end{aligned}$$

3. Calculate $\int \frac{\pi}{2} dz$

$$\begin{aligned}
 \int \frac{\pi}{2} dz &= \frac{\pi}{2} \int z^0 dz \\
 &= \frac{\pi}{2} \cdot z + C \\
 &= \frac{\pi z}{2} + C
 \end{aligned}$$